

Algorithms

Divide and Conquer

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Dynamic Programming

- Solve optimization problems using **overlapping subproblems**.
- Store solved subproblems to avoid recomputation.
- Typical gain: exponential recursion $\rightarrow$ polynomial/linear time.



When DP Applies + Design Pattern

Two required properties

- **Optimal substructure:** optimal solution is built from optimal subproblems.
- **Overlapping subproblems:** same subproblems repeat many times.

DP recipe

- 1 Define a state (what does DP entry represent?).
- 2 Write a recurrence relation.
- 3 Set base cases.
- 4 Compute with memoization (top-down) or tabulation (bottom-up).

Note: If subproblems do not overlap, Divide & Conquer is usually better.



Fibonacci: Why DP Helps

Naive recursion:

$$\text{Fib}(n) = \text{Fib}(n - 1) + \text{Fib}(n - 2), \quad T(n) = O(2^n)$$

Repeated calls to the same subproblems cause exponential blow-up.

DP improvement

- **Top-down (memoization):** cache each $\text{Fib}(i)$ once.
- **Bottom-up (tabulation):** fill $\text{DP}[0 \dots n]$ iteratively.

Both give $O(n)$ **time**. Space is $O(n)$ (or $O(1)$ with rolling variables).



Example 1: Coin Change (Min Coins)

Problem: coins $[c_1, \dots, c_k]$, target n . Find minimum coins.

State: $DP[i]$ = minimum coins to make amount i .

Recurrence:

$$DP[i] = \min_{c \in \text{coins}, c \leq i} (DP[i - c] + 1), \quad DP[0] = 0.$$

Complexity: $O(nk)$ time, $O(n)$ space.

For coins $[1, 2, 5]$, target 11: answer is **3** ($5 + 5 + 1$).



Example 2: LCS (Longest Common Subsequence)

State: $\text{LCS}(i, j)$ = LCS length of prefixes $X[1..i]$, $Y[1..j]$.

Recurrence:

$$\text{LCS}(i, j) = \begin{cases} 1 + \text{LCS}(i - 1, j - 1), & X[i] = Y[j], \\ \max\{\text{LCS}(i - 1, j), \text{LCS}(i, j - 1)\}, & X[i] \neq Y[j]. \end{cases}$$

Base cases: $\text{LCS}(0, j) = \text{LCS}(i, 0) = 0$.

DP table size is $(m + 1) \times (n + 1)$, so $O(mn)$ **time** and $O(mn)$ space.



LCS Example: Final DP Table

Example: $X = \text{ABCB}$, $Y = \text{BDCAB}$

	ϵ	B	D	C	A	B
ϵ	0	0	0	0	0	0
A	0	0	0	0	1	1
B	0	1	1	1	1	2
C	0	1	1	2	2	2
B	0	1	1	2	2	3

Answer: LCS length is **3**. One LCS is BCB.



Example: The Gold-Extractor Game

Problem: Coins are hidden in an $n \times n$ integer grid.

- A player controls two extractors:
 - **Vertical** extractor (red) moves right by one column line.
 - **Horizontal** extractor (blue) moves up by one row line.
- At each step, move exactly one extractor by one line.
- If the new line contains coins, collect exactly one; all other coins on that same line are lost.
- The game ends when *either* extractor reaches its final line.



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Goal

Choose *which* extractor to move at each step to maximize total coins collected.



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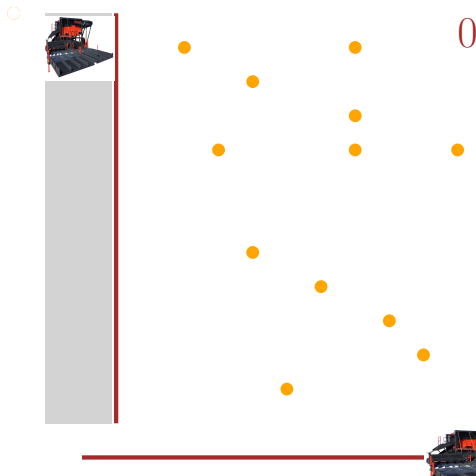
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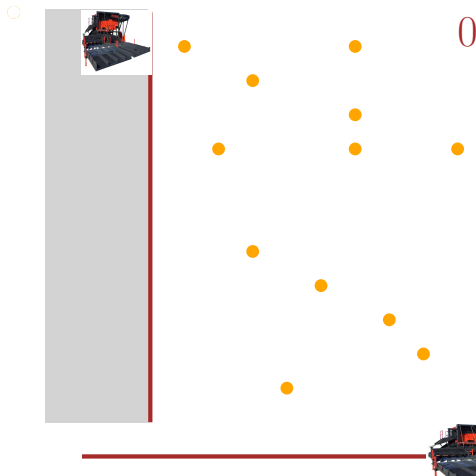
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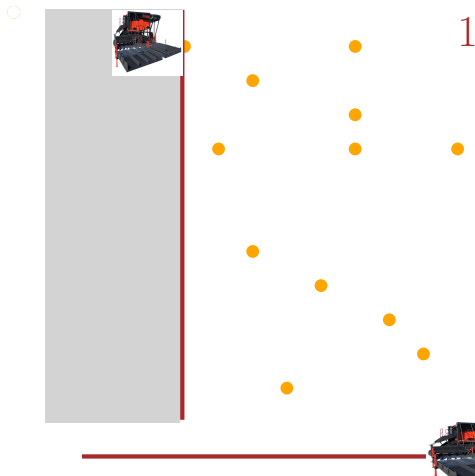
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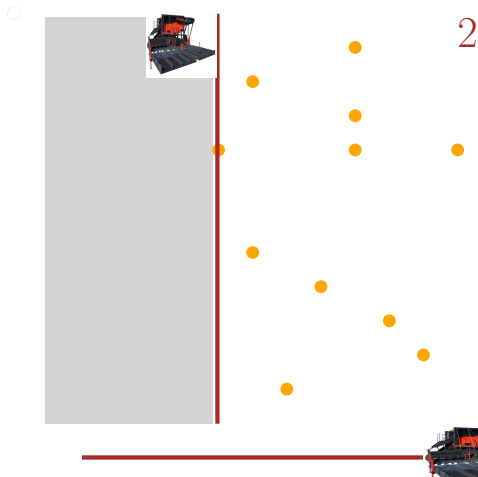
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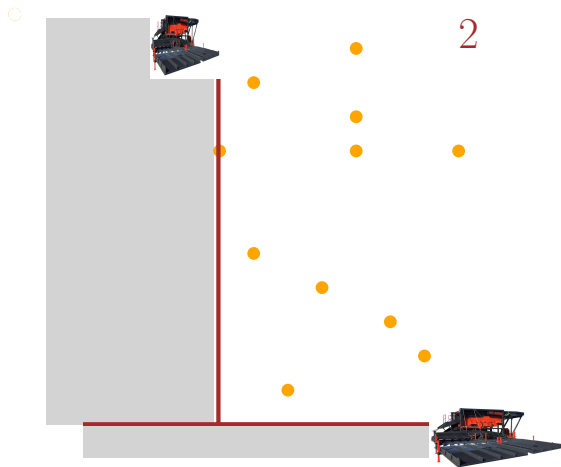
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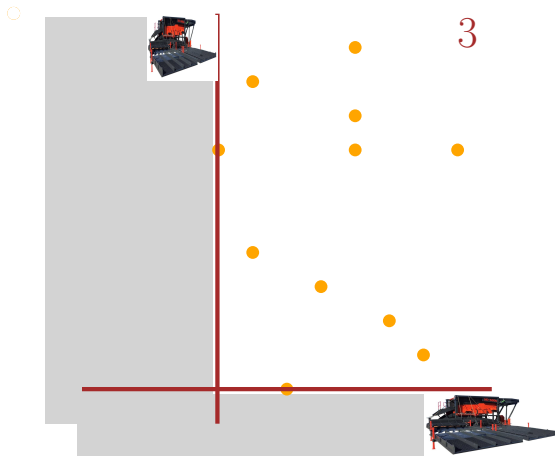
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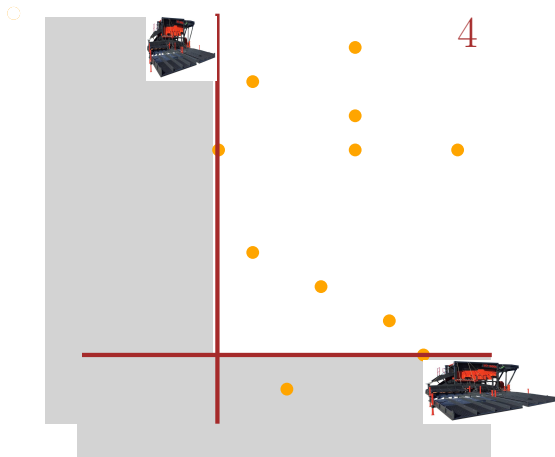
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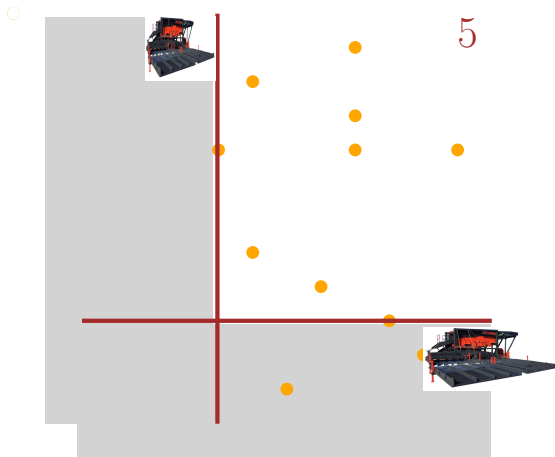
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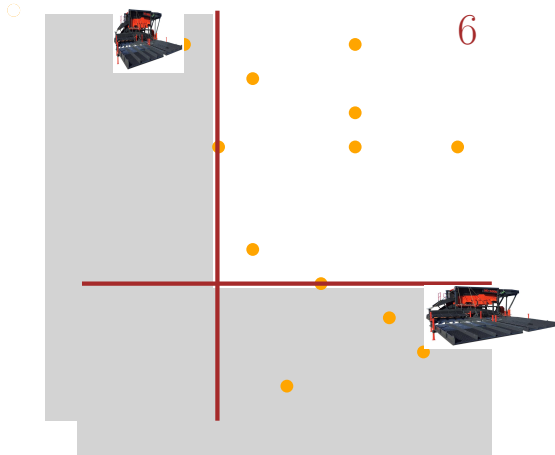
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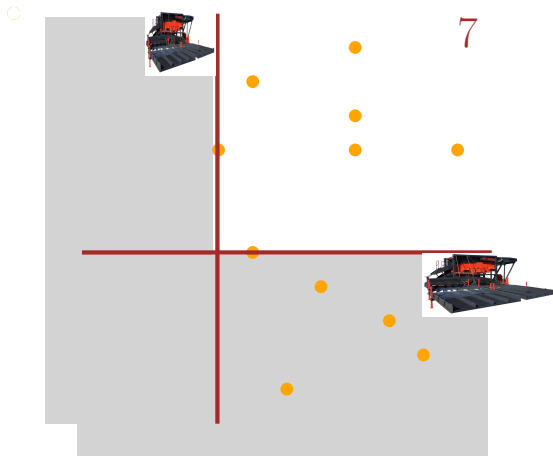
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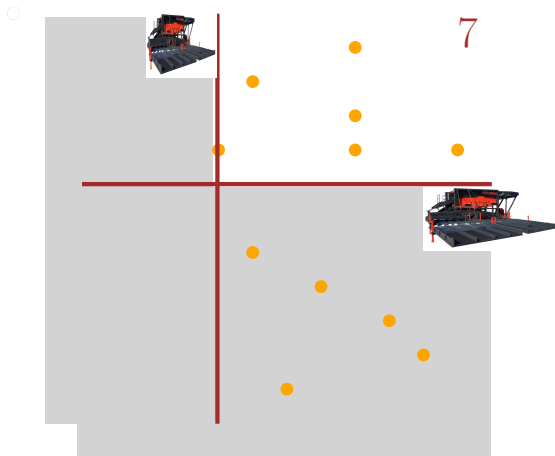
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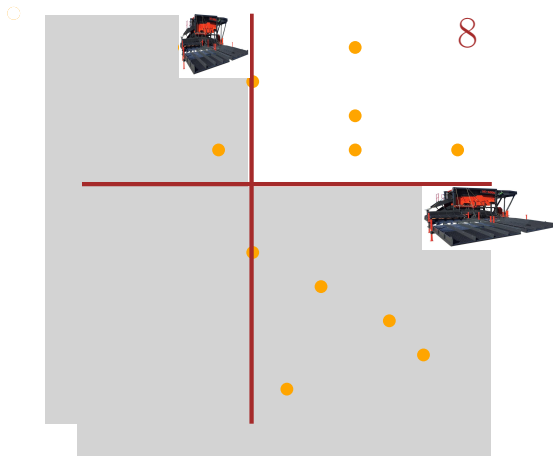
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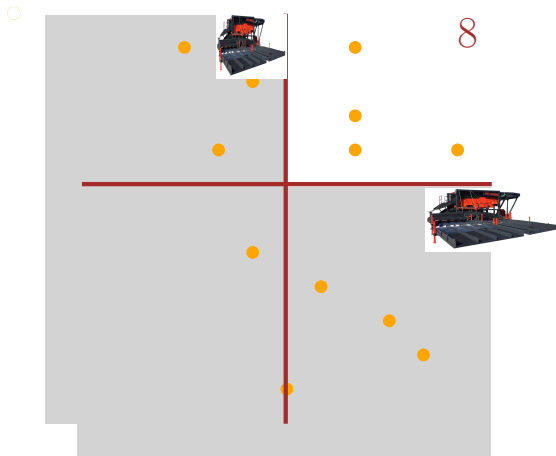
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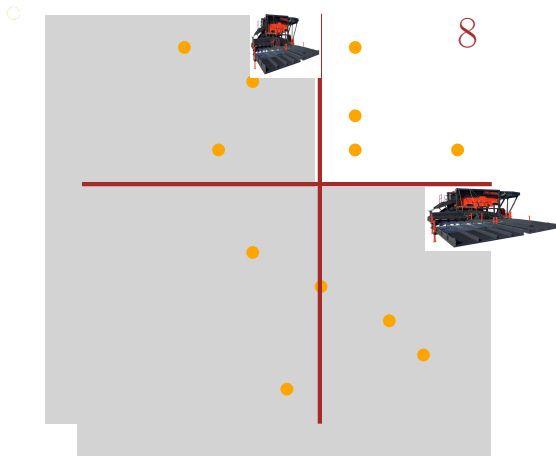
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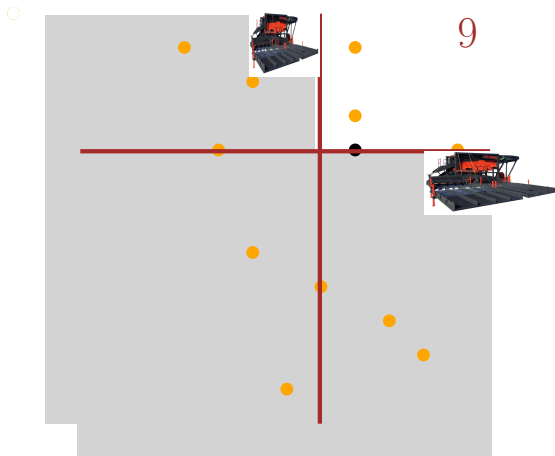
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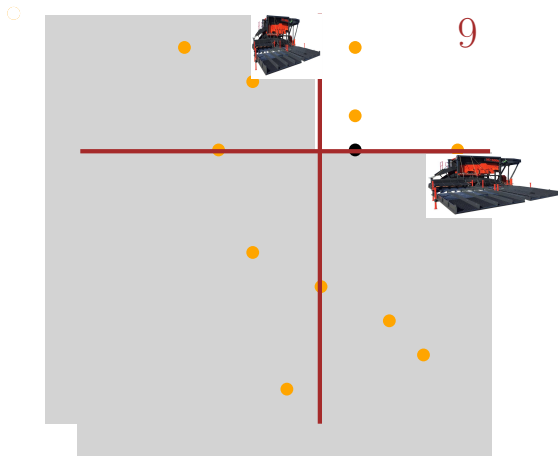
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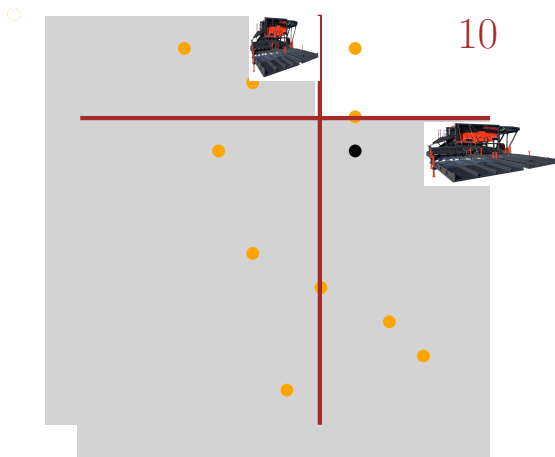
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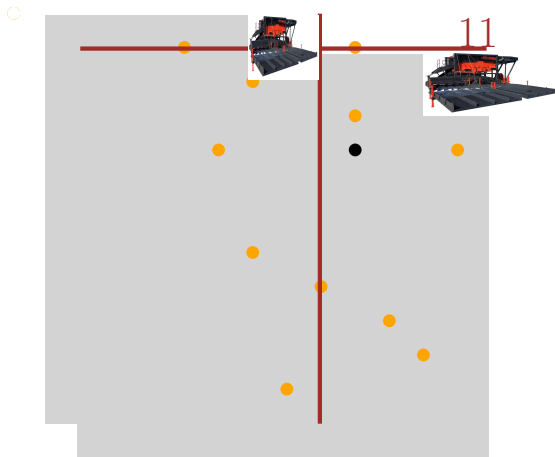
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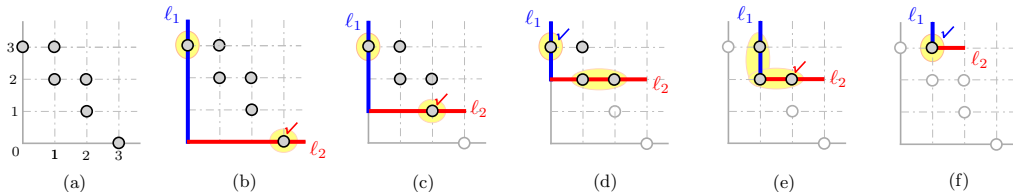
Greedy Approach

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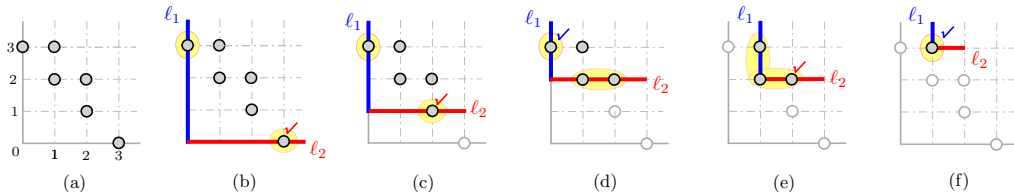
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In practice, this heuristic performs well on random instances.

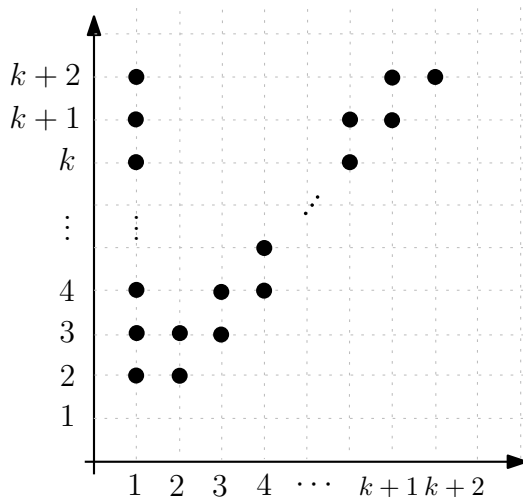
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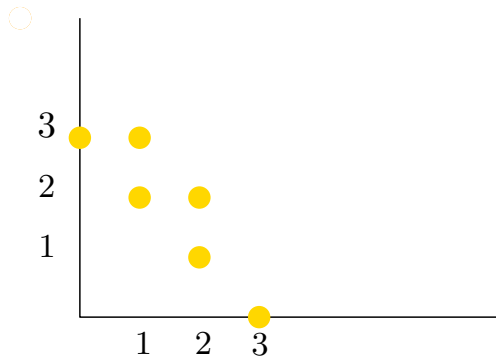
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Why DP?

The same state (c, r) is reachable via many different move sequences — **overlapping subproblems**. Storing $\alpha(c, r)$ avoids recomputation.

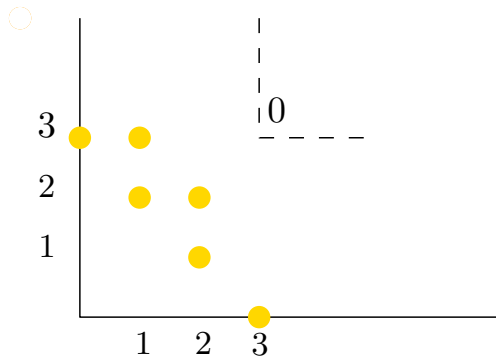
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- States (c, r) form an $n \times n$ table (column $\times$ row).
- Fill from the boundary (base cases at $c = n$ or $r = n$) toward $(0, 0)$.
- Each cell $\alpha(c, r)$ depends only on its right neighbor $\alpha(c + 1, r)$ and its top neighbor $\alpha(c, r + 1)$.



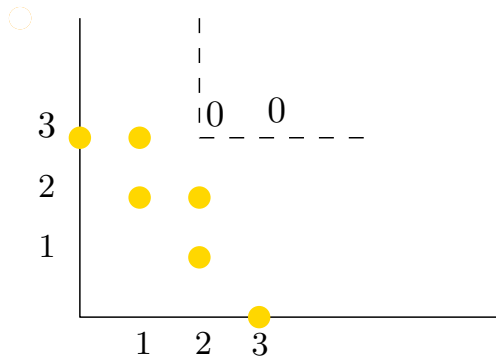
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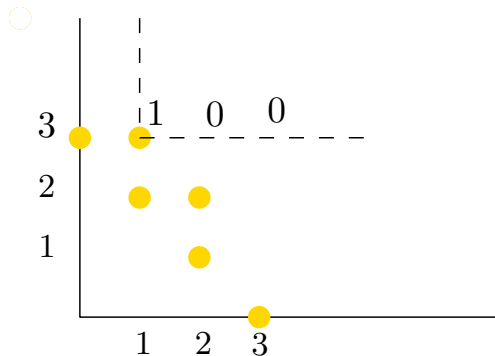
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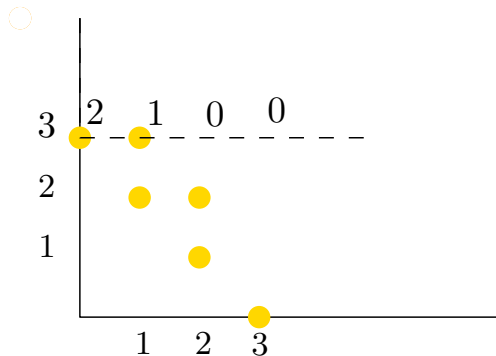
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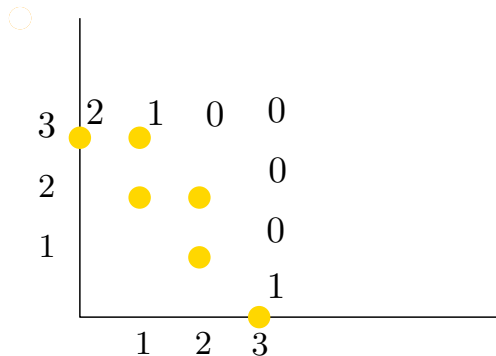
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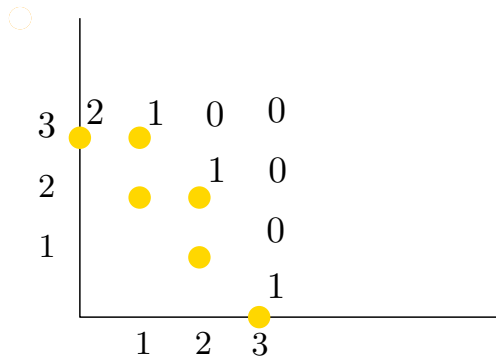
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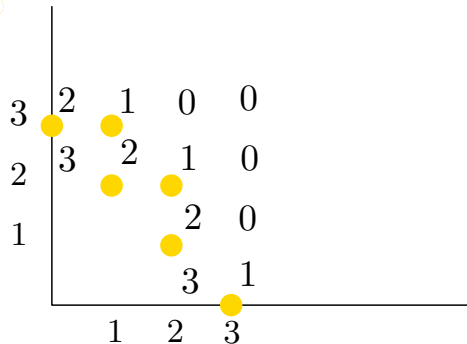
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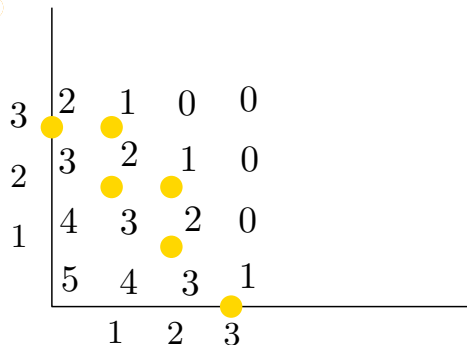
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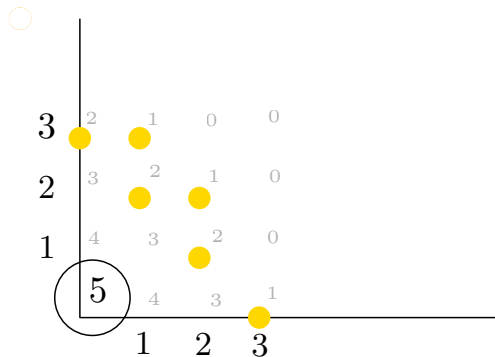
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Time: $O(n^2)$ states, $O(1)$ work each $\Rightarrow O(n^2)$ total.

